

Nietzsche and the Anti-Humanist Critique of Perpetual Peace

It should go without saying that Friedrich Nietzsche, a philosopher avowed for his anti-liberal and anti-egalitarian creeds, is hardly the first person who comes to mind when discussing the topic of peace. Nevertheless, it should also not come as a surprise that the anti-humanist praxis has spawned an abundance of literature relevant to progressive ways of thinking, which famously includes but is not limited to the psychological machinations of Frantz Fanon. As such, this paper will be divided into two major parts. The first part will focus on critiquing the humanist tradition of non-violent action, namely, the Christian *modus operandi* championed by individuals from William Lloyd Garrison to Martin Luther King Jr. In the second part, the paper will speculate on the possibility of an anti-human alternative to achieving peace by drawing on the works of Jacques Derrida, Georg Simmel, and other Nietzschean/anti-humanist theorists. Ultimately, this paper aims to hypothesize a form of world peace not through good deeds or morals, but one interconnected through indifferent networks.

To begin, the failings of the humanist tradition are pointed out quite apparently by the Italian Marxist philosopher Domenico Losurdo in his 2015 book, *Non-Violence: A History Behind the Myth*. The first chapter of the book describes the hypocrisies and fallbacks of the Christian abolitionist movement in the lead-up to the American Civil War. The most vivid case of this was perhaps underscored by the lesser known Christian abolitionist and non-violence proponent, Charles Stearns. Stearns, unlike some of his more pragmatic counterparts, drew the

line on violence as early as “noninjurious physical force” used against a criminal (Losurdo, 13). However, his creed, like many others in the abolitionist movement, was increasingly tested as the expansion of slavery appeared to have no end and whispers of secession began accompanying attacks on non-violent abolitionist groups.

Within three months, Stearns’ rhetoric had visibly shifted. In September 1955, he declared “it is always practicable to be a non-resistant, and to refuse to obey the devil.” By December, he professed that while he himself would not join any preparations for war, “if a fight should occur, I should not be able to stand by and see our men shot without seizing a rifle and pulling its trigger.” The real turning occurred in the following year. Mentally, Stearns never turned cheek to the possibility of reconciling “non-violent professions of faith with involvement in armed struggle...” (Losurdo, 13). Nevertheless, he ever so slightly amended his words once again. He announced that although it was true that non-resistance forbade the taking of another human’s life, “God never made these fiends – they are devils’ spawn, and are to be killed as you would shoot lions and tigers. I have always said I would shoot a wild beast. If I shoot these infernal Missourians, it will be on the same principle... If it were an ordinary foe, I should not do it. But these men are not men... I love all men as ever, but fools and knaves united, and drunk in the bargain, are not men” (Losurdo, 13).

Following, Losurdo criticized what he took to be the apparent hypocrisy Stearns was engaging in, but it never went beyond the point of stating the obvious mental gymnastics alongside religious justifications. Here, one may turn to Nietzsche’s revered analogy on the lambs’ relationship with the birds of prey. In the first essay comprising Nietzsche’s *On the Genealogy of Morality*, “‘Good and Evil,’ ‘Good and Bad’”, Nietzsche uses the image of birds of prey to interrogate the societal construction of “goodness”. He argues that society is prone to

imagining what is good by determining what is not good, or evil. Here, the lambs embody this perspective, what Nietzsche calls *ressentiment* (Nietzsche, 44) and what sets the foundation for his critique of slave morality. Continuing, he writes that the lambs' dislike for the birds does not appear strange, but the problem is that it "gives no ground for reproaching these birds of prey for bearing off little lambs." In other words, it is an essentialist argument with no possibility for recourse. Stearns' justification for violence against the slaveholding South runs into the exact same problem. The ordaining of what is good is predetermined, so that whatever the free states choose to do, pursue a peaceful solution or go to war with the slave holding South, the action is already vindicated simply because they are not the slave holding South. Indeed, there is perhaps no clearer comparison to Nietzsche's slave morality.

Nonetheless, the analogy does not end there. Nietzsche's wider criticism is that society has defaulted to the lambs' point of view and become unable to detach itself from slave morality. Upon creating this paradigm, the lambs adopt a vengeance as a compensation for their inability to act against the forgotten counterpart to slave morality, the nobles' valuation (Nietzsche, 37). In the analogy, the noble perspective is how the birds of prey, in return, view the lambs. And the truth is, they are quite indifferent to what the lambs think. Rather than fixate on distinctions between good and bad, the birds of prey simply hunt the lamb out of biological necessity. It would be erroneous to say the birds are doing so out of hate. If anything, they would be the ones who dryly humor the situation and insist that they actually love the taste of lamb (Nietzsche, 45). Meanwhile, the lambs find in their existence a cause for "violent procession" (Nietzsche, 40), which to them amounts to acts worthy of praise and poetry. Essentially, the crux of Nietzsche's argument is while the greatest forces known to mankind, from the Roman Empire to the Catholic Church, have professed nobility wherever they leave their mark (and it's often a mark of

unbridled destruction), the truth is they have become the ultimate progenitors to the beasts of prey i.e., the lambs of slave morality. The evidence lies in the way these so-called “noble races” adopt similar albeit slightly different versions of the “barbarian” concept. The barbarian represents the inexorable, evil enemy which must be dealt with to which no degree of brutal, sadistic violence is ever considered excessive. Here, one begins to see the ways which a Nietzschean critique could manifest in the anti-colonial discourse. The white man’s burden as a justification for colonial violence fits perfectly in the “barbarian” example and is the reason why many scholars draw a philosophical comparison from Nietzsche to Fanon’s *Wretched of the Earth*.

As a point of clarification, these criticisms are not to be tied to Nietzsche through ideological alignment, since Nietzsche professed equal contempt for Western liberalism, which he amounted to “herd mentality”, as well as to the growing aptitude for Communism, which he regarded as the apex of his slave morality argument. Instead, one may find usefulness in Nietzsche’s observations and descriptive criticisms of the world. While his politics ranged from suspiciously vague to proto-fascist in their implications, one need not follow them to their original conclusion. Indeed, this was the philosophy held by the historian Ishay Landa, who presented the following case in “Peace and its Enemies, Modernity and its Critics”. First, he suggests that although war has been a human characteristic since the dawn of civilization, there is no doubt in Landa’s mind that the modern era marked a turning point in its destructive capacity. However, “it would be misleading to view modernity simply as certifying the existential status of war. For in truth modernity is an unprecedented era also in another... only in modernity, did the prospect become realistic of a world *without wars*” (Landa, 71). For Nietzsche specifically, although this was the man who had once said that in peaceful times, “the

warlike man destroys himself”, Landa argues that this was done not under the impression that war was inevitable, “but very much under the belief that war had become, precisely, *preventable*” (Landa, 72). The cult of thought left by Nietzsche that was subsequently hijacked by the fascist movement was done not merely as a continuum of ancient forms of violence, but also a visceral reaction to the possibility that modernity set the conditions for an everlasting peace upon the world.

Yet the question remains, if peace was supposedly within reach, what has prevented it from being attained? According to Nietzsche, the oversimplified answer would be Christianity, but it is still an answer, nevertheless. Earlier, Charles Stearns was used as an example of the world’s adoption of slave morality, but the criticism can easily be extended to other Christian proponents of non-violence. William Lloyd Garrison, who was among the most famous abolitionists, was arguably much more ideologically consistent in his views than Stearns but as a result, had a much more “complex” and “agonized” reckoning when his views were finally challenged (Losurdo, 15). The other notable figure who was also one of the few thinkers at the time to actually engage with Nietzsche’s work was the Christian anarchist, Leo Tolstoy. Frankly, “engagement” might be a euphemism when it comes to describing Tolstoy’s opinion of Nietzsche. In truth, he despised Nietzsche in ways that went far beyond mild intellectual disagreements.

For example, him calling Nietzsche “stupid and abnormal” likely derived from the following passage out of Tolstoy’s “What is Religion and of What Does its Essence Consist?” To describe the issues plaguing the modern era, Tolstoy diagnosed society with three instances of “backward” movement. The first step backward was when philosophy as a field became concerned with descriptive critiques and questions of what one must do were “pushed to the

background” (Tolstoy, 24). The second step indirectly implicates Nietzsche as it speaks to the pervasiveness of the warlike cult which Nietzsche fostered – acceptance of the struggle for existence as an axiomatic law; acceptance of a world where the strong preyed upon the weak. Finally, the third step “was taken when the childish originality of Nietzsche’s half-crazed thought, presenting nothing complete or coherent... was accepted by the leading figures as the final word in philosophical science” (Tolstoy, 24). Besides the vindictive namedrop, Tolstoy elaborates on the ways Nietzsche’s influence has, in his mind, poisoned the otherwise good will of the world. In response to the question, what must we do? Tolstoy says the answer has presently become; do what you will, “without paying attention to the lives of others... the extraordinary success of Nietzsche’s works is enough to provide irrefutable proof of this” (Tolstoy, 24).

Continuing, Tolstoy anticipated Nietzsche’s singling out of Christianity and so insisted “the whole world knows that virtue consists in the subjugation of one’s passion, or in self-renunciation “ (Tolstoy, 24) and that it wasn’t only Christ “against whom Nietzsche howls” but the “eternal supreme law” which all of humanity was directed toward. Conclusively, it was only baffling to Tolstoy why the world had not discarded the ramblings of a man “convinced that self-renunciation, meekness, submissiveness and love are all vices that destroy humanity” (Tolstoy, 25). Here, we may turn to a secondary source titled “Nietzsche: Buddhism and Nihilism and Christianity” as a defense of Nietzsche’s position on religion. Arthur W. Rudolph, a philosopher with a concentration on Nietzsche, clarifies that although Nietzsche showed favoritism for Buddhist teachings, he criticized both Buddhism and Christianity in works like *Beyond Good and Evil* for the shared purpose of revering agony and preserving traditions that were sickly for men (Rudolph, 38). Nietzsche’s break came in the following year upon writing *The Joyful*

Wisdom. Essentially, Nietzsche was confident that Buddhism was one of, if not the only religion to actually embody the titular phrase, “beyond good and evil.” It maintained a realistic view of the world and posed attainable goals for men to achieve. Where Christianity sought an unobtainable perfection due to the original nature of sin, Buddhism “presupposes a very mild climate” and is a religion where “perfection is the normal case” (Rudolph, 39). If the world were condemned nihilism, Buddhism found solace in reconciling with the end while Christianity fought until the last bitter breath.

Lending some credence to Tolstoy, Nietzsche actually saw in the figure of Christ a number of Buddha-esque qualities. In *The Antichrist*, Nietzsche characterized Jesus as a “free spirit” whose personal narrative was much more compelling than whatever dogma or religious institutions the Church later constructed in his image (Rudolph, 40). Though he never wrote on Tolstoy the way Tolstoy did for him, it’s possible to imagine Nietzsche granting some grace for his detractor’s anarchist qualities and refusing to adopt the Church’s suffocating creeds. At the same time, it might be the case that this personal refusal was the final shape in slave morality – a rejection of all societal establishments and *ressentiment* at a level never previously witnessed. Tolstoy’s assertion that his view, alone, was the correct interpretation of the gospel may have proved more fatalistic to the possibility of a peace-loving Kingdom of God than anything else. In other words, while Tolstoy may have been the most ideologically committed to the tenets of non-violence, it would not amount to much material change.

By contrast, Martin Luther King, Jr.’s following of the Christian school of non-violence and indeed Tolstoy’s teachings is perhaps the strongest argument for the humanist case of peace. A champion of progressive thought whose martyrdom only further cemented his legacy, Martin Luther King is typically positioned as occupying one side of the ideological foundation for the

American Civil Rights Movement. While many consider Malcolm X to represent the opposite side for his militant, nationalistic qualities, it may be helpful to broaden the intellectual scope to include the anti-liberal and anti-humanist wings of the Afropessimist bloc. Afro-pessimism, according to the scholar Frank B. Wilderson III, is a critical framework that posits anti-blackness not simply as a form of discrimination in the States, but an indivisible element that shapes global understandings of belonging and personhood. As the name suggests, Afropessimists were not immediately convinced of the methods centered around transcendental humanist practices or the overcoming of racial adversity. One of the individuals that immediately comes to mind is the American literary critic, Ralph Ellison, whose short story, “The World and the Jug” from his anthology “Shadow and Act”, contains a highly Nietzschean critique.

Playing with Nietzsche’s writings on memory and forgetfulness, Ellison is interested in the ways that segregation has impacted the concept of blackness at an epistemological level. In “The World and the Jug”, he makes numerous references to the writings of both Richard Wright and Irving Howe, two other prominent politically minded thinkers and critics of the pre and present Civil Rights Era. Howe, a white man, was associated with the democratic socialist movement and often clashed with both the orthodox Marxist wing as well as the emerging New Left on numerous issues. Wright served as an early mentor figure for Ellison in the 1930s and was similar to Ellison in that he focused on the literary, fictional elements of civil rights rather than the overt political protest writings of the era. This is especially significant when looking at the context in which “The World and the Jug” was written. Howe, who had written an essay titled “Black Boys and Native Sons” (1963), felt that the literary focus of both Wright and Ellison was too abstract in a moment when racism and political emancipation was on everyone’s

mind. “The World and the Jug” was not only Ellison’s response to Howe, but also an assertion to his own brand of resistance.

Essentially, Howe credited Wright in “Native Sons” for striking a balance between emancipatory writings and a necessary “anger” in the political moment (Ellison, 120). By contrast, “Howe considers Ellison and [James] Baldwin guilty of filial betrayal because, in their own work, they have rejected the path laid down... because, while actually ‘black boys,’ [in reference to “Native Sons”] they pretend to be mere American writers trying to react to something of the pluralism of their predicament” (Ellison, 113). In other words, Howe attacked writers like Ellison for not being “angry enough”. In response, Ellison writes “[Irving] Howe seems to see segregation as an opaque steel jug with the Negroes inside waiting for some black messiah to come along and blow the cork. Wright is his hero and he sticks with him loyally. But if we are in a jug it is transparent, not opaque, and one is allowed not only to see outside but to read what is going on out there; to make identifications as to values and human quality” (Ellison, 116). Notwithstanding a tone of white liberal condescension, Howe overlooks a number of Ellison’s contributions because he is so wrapped up in the militance of “power structures” and explicit political designations.

The Nietzschean critique of slave morality begins to emerge when one considers the ways that Howe and the progressive humanists wants African Americans to think about race. And that is fidelity as burned within the black man and thinking to the exclusivity of the scar which defines their existence. Thus, the only way to alleviate the pains of this scar is through integration and assimilating into a system that has historically denied them the opportunity. It is at this point Ellison makes a suggestion which leads many thinkers to associate him with a strain of conservatism in the civil rights literary movement, and that is his conditional defense of the

“separate but equal” clause. Originally coined by the 1896 Plessy v. Ferguson Supreme Court case which upheld de jure racial segregation, the decision was eventually overturned by another landmark decision in Brown v. Board of Education in 1954, which found that racially segregated educational facilities were intrinsically unequal and played an integral role in the abolishment of segregation at large. However, it is important to observe the specificities in Ellison’s language when he interprets “separate but equal”. A good example of this is made as Ellison describes the consequences of a liberal politics centered on white guilt. Speaking on personal experience, the pervading presence of this white guilt leads Jewish intellectuals (like Howe) to unconsciously and facilely identify with racial generalizations, what was previously mentioned as the “power structure” (Ellison, 126). Continuing, he writes, “Thus I feel uncomfortable whenever I discover Jewish intellectuals writing as though *they* were guilty of enslaving my grandparents, or as though the *Jews* were responsible for the system of segregation... both as writer and Negro American, I would like to see the more positive distinctions between whites and Jewish Americans maintained” (Ellison, 126).

These “positive distinctions” are then explicitly tied with the black American experience as Ellison reminisces on his time at Tuskegee University, one of the premier historically black colleges and universities (HBCUs) with a rich history predating desegregation. Ellison here admits that “he had no need to attend a white university when the master [the black conductor-composer William L. Dawson] [Ellison] wished to study with was available at Tuskegee.” He then asks the question, “why should I have wished to attend the white state-controlled university where the works of the great writers might not have been so easily available” (Ellison, 136). Apparently, the question is rhetorical in nature. Here, Ellison refutes the idea that the ends for desegregation amounted to a proximity to whiteness. Furthermore, it is also a refutation to the

liberal intuition of assimilation, the humanist coming-together which many progressives in the movement championed. This was also the result of what Ellison called a “flattening out” of the social sciences. In Nietzschean fashion, the anti-Stalinist parts of the political Left were terrified at the possibility of an authoritarian blowback and chose modernism as an alternative to socialist realism. Consequently, there was a level of moderation to all their messaging and a streak of powerlessness in the movement. Rather than re-orient their “presumptions concerning a given reality”, the “sociology-oriented critics seem to rate literature so far below politics and ideology” that they would choose to “kill a novel” (Ellison, 108).

Yet in so doing, Ellison argues the critics restrict themselves from a world of possibility. Allowing Marx to have the final word before learning “to use literature as a means for discovering the forms of American Negro humanity” is a travesty (Ellison, 120). Not only that but adhering to such strict dogma leads to living with a heavy burden of consciousness. According to Nietzsche, there is no greater task than the Herculean labor of embodying the sovereign subject, an existence filled with endless work and toil. It begs the question of what life might be like if one were to shift their modality to the “surface level” of the nobles. Ellison’s answer comes in the form of an anecdote featuring a hunting trip in Dayton, Ohio during the 1937 Recession. Long story short, Ellison and an unnamed companion had a brief yet tense moment when a farmer, outraged at what he saw as a blatant act of trespassing, threatened the two men with a rifle. The dynamic changes, however, when the farmer realizes that the two men which he had no qualms threatening were armed themselves. [The farmer] stood there between the two shotguns pointing short-ranged at his middle, his face quite drained of color now by the realization of how close to death he’d come... He truly did not realize that situations can be more loaded than guns and gestures more eloquent than words. Fortunately, words are not rifles, but

perhaps [Irving] Howe is just as innocent of the rhetorical eloquence of situations as the farmer” (Ellison, 129). It is in this last passage specifically which therein lies the key to anti-humanist resistance. Indeed, the peace that was maintained in this story was not done out of goodwill or anything close to a shared moral imperative. Rather, it was based on a mutual understanding of the destruction that awaited those who wanted to stir trouble. Thus, power and violence are not just things to be monopolized by the status quo, but also the basis for an insurgency. And it is in the insurgents’ balancing of the scales that peace is tentatively maintained.

Returning to *Genealogy*, Nietzsche analyzes slave morality as “popular morality which separates strength from expressions of strength, as if there were a neutral substratum behind the strong man, which was free to express strength or not to do so. But there is no such substratum; there is no ‘being’ behind doing, effecting, becoming; ‘the doer’ is merely a fiction added to the deed – the deed is everything” (Nietzsche, 45). Here, one can make another connection to the anti-humanist and specifically Fanonian view on violence. The idea that it doesn’t inherently carry any moral weight and is simply a means to an end, a tool that one chooses to use or does not use. In the context of colonialism or oppression, it reframes the mind of the downtrodden from the violence they have suffered to the violence they have inflicted or have the potential to inflict. Another example of this insurgent element arises through the reimagining of non-violent protest through the Derridean approach of deconstruction. Jacques Derrida, a French philosopher associated with the post-structuralist and postmodern movement, was greatly inspired by Nietzsche and other critics of modernity such as Heidegger and Foucault.

In “The Conceptual Aporia of Non-Violent Resistance: A Derridean Deconstructive Approach” (2023), contributors Yiğit Sumbul and Sengün Meltem Acar harness Derrida’s critique and apply it to non-violent movements. In essence, their thesis looks to reframe what

society considers violence and break away from the often binary understanding of violence versus non-violence. They urge their audience to reconsider movements like Gandhi's Salt March and MLK's role in the establishment of the Montgomery Improvement Association under the lens of Derrida's posthumous article, "To Forgive: The Unforgivable and the Imprescriptible". Socially, Derrida notes that the ritual of forgiveness is most often directed at the very acts that are considered "unforgivable" and forgiveness instead manifests in an avoidance of "historicizing wrongdoing" (Sumbul et. al, 374). Continuing, this avoidance is adopted through the universalizing of moral code, which often takes shape in a Judeo-Christian relation of forgiveness to things like "expiation, salvation, redemption, and reconciliation." In the above-mentioned cases, the practice of non-violent resistance is characterized by the oppressed party's non-involvement in any form of physical force and carries with it the connotation of forgiveness. However, the point of the aporia is that the paradox needs a mechanism of release. "Non-violent resistance can be defined as dedication and determination... so that action will remain within humanistic borders. Yet, non-violent resistance is used as a means of giving a clear message that the violent side is not as humane as the victim side" (Sumbul et. al, 378). In reality, the image of forgiveness is illusory. Instead, the beast that is Nietzsche's slave morality rears its head and reveals itself in the perpetual denial of *psychological* violence, which Sumbul and Acar argue is inseparable from non-violence.

The normative argument, then, is not that nonviolence ought to shed its strategic targeting of the oppressor's conscious, but rather to own up to its true nature and embrace the guerilla tactics which it has passively tolerated. That all being said, it would be a mistake to interpret this as an absolute call to violence. Indeed, the anti-humanist tradition is more interested in subverting the Hegelian call to sovereignty, a core tenet of humanism, than it is in dictating how

violence and peace are applied. A better way to think on it is that in circumstances where violence is deemed necessary, it is in whatever actor's advantage to discard the moral grandstanding and regard violence for what it is, a neutral device. However, in cases where nonviolence is still preferable, there is perhaps a sounder solution than preserving the pantomime of good faith discourse and egalitarian outcomes. If we take Nietzsche's critique seriously, these ideals can only exist in a vacuum and are constantly at risk of rupturing in the real world. Consequently, the illusion shatters and peace appears further and further from reach. If a politics of hate (*ressentiment* as Nietzsche would put it) leads toward the path of violence, and a politics of love (humanist) is nothing but a masking of this hatred, the thought remains of what kind of politics is even left.

The anti-humanist's response might be "indifference". A politics of indifference is one that detaches itself from the emotions that characterize human behavior. With this in mind, one could posit it as a politics that seeks in the most practical sense, to become *less human*. In fact, this was Michel Foucault's (who was deeply inspired by Nietzsche's hermeneutics of suspicion) stated goal in his 1980 essay, "What is Enlightenment?" as outlined in the mini-dissertation, "Towards Ethical Nihilism" by Charles M. Villet Junior. In this piece, Villet outlines Foucault's anti-humanist stance through a number of passages that highlight the positivist view of "the death of man." Drawing on language from the Frankfurt School of Critical Theory, Foucault describes the Enlightenment as "blackmail" (Villet, 119) which forces people into highly compartmentalized views on what it means to be human. Moreover, the problem with humanism at large is that "it bolsters a certain, fixed conception of human nature" (Villet, 120). In the pursuit of perpetual peace, we look to modern strategies on diplomacy, which seeks compromise based on a shared interest yet is riddled with rhetoric and optics that present a friendly human

face. To this, Foucault and the anti-humanist cynics might ask, what is the point of pretending these conversations are being done in good faith? Why pretend that the well has not been poisoned and that these world leaders don't feel contempt for one another behind closed doors?

Here, we propose a solution that connects two seemingly unrelated pieces of literature, Marc-William Palen's "Pax Economica: Left-Wing Visions of a Free Trade World" and Georg Simmel's "The Philosophy of Money". The former is grounded in the radical liberal tradition and draws on theories from the Marx Manchester school of thought. The latter is a sociology book that follows the German-Nietzschean tradition. Both, however, are interested in the power of moneyed networks and their ability to emancipate the self and society. Money, which is the great equalizer of our times, is often viewed in a negative light by the progressive humanists who would prefer a society built on a goodwill that is indeterminate and chaotic in nature. Money, which represents the most consistent, atomized and measurable unit of social relations, is according to Simmel the only "form of freedom" that doesn't hide behind a façade. It weakens the human connection to its most base form, a transactional one, while leaving undisturbed the idiosyncrasies of the personal and the particular (Simmel, 304). In context, what is the baseline opinion that most people, regardless of political affiliations, regardless of the "personal" differences and "particulars" can agree on? It is an anti-war position, and money may be the key.

There is an argument to be made on the "economic violence" of protectionism, the same kind that was condemned by the free trade feminist movements of the 20th century, and how it relates to war in the contemporary moment. For example, Russia's invasion of Ukraine is a topic going on almost four years now and scholars are still debating what could have prevented it. There is the opinion that no type of diplomacy is possible in the face of Putin's megalomaniacal evil, yet the crux of the anti-humanist argument is that it pays no mind to the personal ideologies

of anybody. Ultimately, whether or not Russia would have done the same if NATO countries hadn't sanctioned them is an untestable thought experiment, yet it may leave an important lesson in the prevention of future conflicts. Case in point, one could make the case that the reason the Chinese Communist Party has not attempted any similar incursion into Taiwan is because the two countries are not only bound financially to one another, but also to the larger world trade system. China serving as the world's largest producer is not only a source for national pride, but also a tacit check on the nation's capacity for aggression. Furthermore, this kind of peace insurance is completely removed from the Chinese government's other policies and agenda. In a world of mixed governmental systems, trade, and by proxy, money could be the solution that has been hiding under our very noses. The importance is that it is grounded in the sociological and philosophical workings of Nietzschean thought, one that embraces the subversive anti-human figure and assumes a critical position on ethical humanism.

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